

Linear Algebra

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Vectors

Definition 0.1 (Column vector). A **column vector** of length p is an ordered list of p numbers, written vertically:

$$\tilde{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ \vdots \\ x_p \end{bmatrix}$$

Column vectors are the default convention in these notes and in most statistics textbooks. They are also called $p \times 1$ *matrices*.

Definition 0.2 (Transpose). The **transpose** of a column vector $\tilde{x}$ is the row vector with the same sequence of entries, written horizontally:

$$\tilde{x}^\top \equiv \tilde{x}' \equiv [x_1, x_2, \dots, x_p]$$

The transpose operation converts a column vector to a row vector, or more generally, swaps the rows and columns of a matrix (Definition [0.12](#)).

Definition 0.3 (Vector addition). The **sum** of two column vectors $\tilde{x}$ and $\tilde{y}$ of the same length p is the column vector $\tilde{x} + \tilde{y}$ of length p obtained by adding entry by entry:

$$(\tilde{x} + \tilde{y})_i \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} x_i + y_i, \quad i = 1, \dots, p$$

Example 0.1 (Adding two vectors).

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 5 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1+4 \\ 2+5 \\ 3+6 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 5 \\ 7 \\ 9 \end{bmatrix}$$

Definition 0.4 (Dot product). For any two real-valued vectors $\tilde{x} = (x_1, \dots, x_p)$ and $\tilde{y} = (y_1, \dots, y_p)$ of the same length p , the **dot product** of $\tilde{x}$ and $\tilde{y}$ is:

$$\tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{y} \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \sum_{i=1}^p x_i y_i$$

i Note

The dot product $\tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{y}$ is a *linear combination* of the entries of $\tilde{y}$, with coefficients $x_1, \dots, x_p$. It is also the standard *inner product* on $\mathbb{R}^p$; “inner product” is the general notion, of which the dot product is one example.

See also the definitions in

- Dobson and Barnett (2018), Section 1.3 (equation 1.1, page 7)
- Kaplan (2022), chapter on vectors
- [wikipedia](#)

“Linear combination” can also refer to weighted sums of vectors, or in other words matrix-vector multiplication.

The dot-product has a different generalization for two matrices; see [wikipedia](#) for more.

Example 0.2 (A dot product). For $\tilde{x} = (1, 2, 3)$ and $\tilde{y} = (4, 5, 6)$:

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{y} &= 1 \cdot 4 + 2 \cdot 5 + 3 \cdot 6 && \text{(definition of the dot product)} \\ &= 4 + 10 + 18 && \text{(multiply)} \\ &= 32 && \text{(add)} \end{aligned}$$

Theorem 0.1 (Dot product is symmetric). *The dot product is symmetric:*

$$\tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{y} = \tilde{y} \cdot \tilde{x}$$

i Proof

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned}\tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{y} &= \sum_{i=1}^p x_i y_i && \text{(definition of the dot product)} \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^p y_i x_i && \text{(products of numbers are symmetric)} \\ &= \tilde{y} \cdot \tilde{x} && \text{(definition of the dot product)}\end{aligned}$$

□

Special vectors

Definition 0.5 (Zero vector). The **zero vector** $\tilde{0}$ of length p has all entries equal to zero:

$$\tilde{0} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

The zero vector is the additive identity for vector addition: $\tilde{x} + \tilde{0} = \tilde{x}$ for any vector $\tilde{x}$ of the same length.

Definition 0.6 (Ones vector). The **ones vector** $\tilde{1}$ of length p has all entries equal to one:

$$\tilde{1} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ \vdots \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

The dot product $\tilde{1} \cdot \tilde{x} = \sum_{i=1}^p x_i$ is the sum of all entries of $\tilde{x}$.

Definition 0.7 (Indicator vector / standard basis vector). The j -th **indicator vector** (or *standard basis vector*) $\tilde{e}_j$ of length p has a 1 in position j and 0s elsewhere:

$$(\tilde{e}_j)_i = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases} \quad \tilde{e}_j = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \leftarrow \text{position } j$$

They are also called *unit vectors* or *standard basis vectors*.

Theorem 0.2 (Indicator vectors select entries). *For any vector $\tilde{x}$ of length p and any $j \in \{1, \dots, p\}$:*

$$\tilde{e}_j \cdot \tilde{x} = x_j$$

i Proof

Proof. Writing the dot product componentwise:

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{e}_j \cdot \tilde{x} &= \sum_{i=1}^p (\tilde{e}_j)_i x_i && \text{(definition of the dot product)} \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^p \begin{cases} 1 \cdot x_i & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 \cdot x_i & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases} && \text{(definition of } \tilde{e}_j) \\ &= x_j && \text{(only the } i = j \text{ term is nonzero)} \end{aligned}$$

□

Orthogonality

Definition 0.8 (Orthogonal vectors). Two vectors $\tilde{x}$ and $\tilde{y}$ of the same length are **orthogonal** (written $\tilde{x} \perp \tilde{y}$) if their dot product (Definition 0.4) is zero:

$$\tilde{x} \perp \tilde{y} \iff \tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{y} = 0$$

Orthogonality generalizes the geometric notion of perpendicularity to arbitrary dimensions.

Definition 0.9 (Euclidean norm). The **Euclidean norm** (or *length*) of a vector $\tilde{x}$ of length p is

$$\|\tilde{x}\| \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \sqrt{\tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{x}} = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^p x_i^2}$$

Example 0.3 (The length of a vector). For $\tilde{x} = (3, 4)$:

$$\begin{aligned} \|\tilde{x}\| &= \sqrt{3^2 + 4^2} && \text{(definition of the norm)} \\ &= \sqrt{25} && \text{(square and add)} \\ &= 5 \end{aligned}$$

The vector $(0.6, 0.8)$ has norm $\sqrt{0.36 + 0.64} = 1$.

Definition 0.10 (Orthonormal vectors). A set of vectors $\{\tilde{x}_1, \tilde{x}_2, \dots, \tilde{x}_k\}$ is **orthonormal** if the vectors are mutually orthogonal (Definition 0.8) and each has norm 1 (Definition 0.9), that is, unit length:

$$\tilde{x}_i \cdot \tilde{x}_j = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases}$$

The indicator vectors $\tilde{e}_1, \tilde{e}_2, \dots, \tilde{e}_p$ (Definition 0.7) form an orthonormal set.

Matrices

Definition 0.11 (Matrix). A **matrix** of dimensions $m \times n$ is a rectangular array of $m \cdot n$ numbers, arranged in m rows and n columns:

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{m1} & a_{m2} & \cdots & a_{mn} \end{bmatrix}$$

The entry in row i and column j is denoted a_{ij} or $(\mathbf{A})_{ij}$. A column vector of length p is a special case: a $p \times 1$ matrix. A row vector of length p is a $1 \times p$ matrix.

Matrix transpose

Definition 0.12 (Matrix transpose). The **transpose** of an $m \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$ is the $n \times m$ matrix $\mathbf{A}^\top$ obtained by swapping the rows and columns of $\mathbf{A}$:

$$(\mathbf{A}^\top)_{ij} = a_{ji}$$

Matrix addition

Definition 0.13 (Zero matrix). The $m \times n$ **zero matrix** $\mathbf{0}_{m \times n}$ (or $\mathbf{0}$ when dimensions are clear from context) has all entries equal to zero:

$$\mathbf{0}_{m \times n} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

Definition 0.14 (Matrix addition). Two matrices $\mathbf{A}$ and $\mathbf{B}$ of the same dimensions $m \times n$ can be added element-wise; their **matrix sum** is:

$$(\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B})_{ij} = a_{ij} + b_{ij}$$

Theorem 0.3 (Matrix addition is commutative). *For $m \times n$ matrices $\mathbf{A}$ and $\mathbf{B}$:*

$$\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B} = \mathbf{B} + \mathbf{A}$$

Theorem 0.4 (Matrix addition is associative). *For $m \times n$ matrices $\mathbf{A}$, $\mathbf{B}$, and $\mathbf{C}$:*

$$(\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B}) + \mathbf{C} = \mathbf{A} + (\mathbf{B} + \mathbf{C})$$

Theorem 0.5 (Zero matrix is the additive identity). *For an $m \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$:*

$$\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{0}_{m \times n} = \mathbf{A}$$

Theorem 0.6 (Additive inverse). *For any $m \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$, the $m \times n$ matrix $-\mathbf{A}$ (defined by $(-\mathbf{A})_{ij} = -a_{ij}$) satisfies:*

$$\mathbf{A} + (-\mathbf{A}) = \mathbf{0}_{m \times n}$$

Scalar multiplication

Definition 0.15 (Scalar multiplication). The **scalar multiple** of a matrix $\mathbf{A}$ by a scalar c is:

$$(c\mathbf{A})_{ij} = c \cdot a_{ij}$$

Matrix multiplication

Definition 0.16 (Matrix multiplication). The **product** of an $m \times k$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$ and a $k \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{B}$ is the $m \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{AB}$ with entries:

$$c_{ij} = \sum_{s=1}^k a_{is} b_{sj}$$

Matrix multiplication is only defined when the number of columns in $\mathbf{A}$ equals the number of rows in $\mathbf{B}$.

Matrix multiplication is **not** commutative in general: $\mathbf{AB} \neq \mathbf{BA}$.

Example 0.4 (Dot product as matrix multiplication). The dot product of two column vectors $\tilde{x}$ and $\tilde{\beta}$ can be written as a matrix product of the row vector $\tilde{x}^\top$ with the column vector $\tilde{\beta}$:

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{x} \cdot \tilde{\beta} &= \tilde{x}^\top \tilde{\beta} \\ &= [x_1, x_2, \dots, x_p] \begin{bmatrix} \beta_1 \\ \beta_2 \\ \vdots \\ \beta_p \end{bmatrix} \\ &= x_1\beta_1 + x_2\beta_2 + \dots + x_p\beta_p \end{aligned}$$

Theorem 0.7 (Matrix multiplication is associative). For an $m \times k$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$, a $k \times l$ matrix $\mathbf{B}$, and an $l \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{C}$:

$$\underbrace{(\mathbf{AB})\mathbf{C}}_{m \times n} = \underbrace{\mathbf{A}(\mathbf{BC})}_{m \times n}$$

i Proof

Proof. Entry (i, j) of each side, from Definition 0.16:

$$\begin{aligned} [(\mathbf{AB})\mathbf{C}]_{ij} &= \sum_{t=1}^l (\mathbf{AB})_{it} c_{tj} && \text{(definition of } (\mathbf{AB})\mathbf{C}) \\ &= \sum_{t=1}^l \left(\sum_{s=1}^k a_{is} b_{st} \right) c_{tj} && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{AB}) \\ &= \sum_{s=1}^k a_{is} \left(\sum_{t=1}^l b_{st} c_{tj} \right) && \text{(distribute and swap the finite sums)} \\ &= \sum_{s=1}^k a_{is} (\mathbf{BC})_{sj} && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{BC}) \\ &= [\mathbf{A}(\mathbf{BC})]_{ij} && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{A}(\mathbf{BC})) \end{aligned}$$

□

Theorem 0.8 (Matrix multiplication is distributive over addition). *For an $m \times k$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$ and $k \times n$ matrices $\mathbf{B}$ and $\mathbf{C}$:*

$$\mathbf{A}(\mathbf{B} + \mathbf{C}) = \mathbf{AB} + \mathbf{AC}$$

For $m \times k$ matrices $\mathbf{A}$ and $\mathbf{B}$ and a $k \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{C}$:

$$(\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B})\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{AC} + \mathbf{BC}$$

Matrix-vector multiplication

Definition 0.17 (Matrix-vector multiplication). The **matrix-vector product** of an $m \times p$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$ and a $p \times 1$ column vector $\tilde{x}$ is the $m \times 1$ column vector $\mathbf{A}\tilde{x}$ with entries:

$$(\mathbf{A}\tilde{x})_i = \sum_{j=1}^p a_{ij} x_j$$

Matrix-vector multiplication is a generalization of the dot product. Each entry of the result is a dot product of a row of $\mathbf{A}$ with the vector $\tilde{x}$.

Transposes of sums and products

Theorem 0.9 (Transpose of a sum). *For $m \times n$ matrices $\mathbf{A}$ and $\mathbf{B}$:*

$$(\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B})^\top = \mathbf{A}^\top + \mathbf{B}^\top$$

In particular, for column vectors $\tilde{x}$ and $\tilde{y}$ of the same length:

$$(\tilde{x} + \tilde{y})^\top = \tilde{x}^\top + \tilde{y}^\top$$

Proof

Proof. Entry (i, j) of each side:

$$\begin{aligned} [(\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B})^\top]_{ij} &= (\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B})_{ji} && \text{(definition of the transpose)} \\ &= a_{ji} + b_{ji} && \text{(definition of matrix addition)} \\ &= (\mathbf{A}^\top)_{ij} + (\mathbf{B}^\top)_{ij} && \text{(definition of the transpose)} \\ &= [\mathbf{A}^\top + \mathbf{B}^\top]_{ij} && \text{(definition of matrix addition)} \end{aligned}$$

□

Theorem 0.10 (Transpose of a product). *For an $m \times k$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$ and a $k \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{B}$:*

$$\underbrace{(\mathbf{AB})^\top}_{n \times m} = \underbrace{\mathbf{B}^\top}_{n \times k} \underbrace{\mathbf{A}^\top}_{k \times m}$$

Proof

Proof. Entry (i, j) of each side:

$$\begin{aligned} [(\mathbf{AB})^\top]_{ij} &= (\mathbf{AB})_{ji} && \text{(definition of the transpose)} \\ &= \sum_{s=1}^k a_{js} b_{si} && \text{(definition of matrix multiplication)} \\ &= \sum_{s=1}^k (\mathbf{B}^\top)_{is} (\mathbf{A}^\top)_{sj} && \text{(definition of the transpose; reorder each product)} \\ &= [\mathbf{B}^\top \mathbf{A}^\top]_{ij} && \text{(definition of matrix multiplication)} \end{aligned}$$

□

The order of the factors reverses when transposing a product.

Rank

Definition 0.18 (Linearly independent vectors). Vectors $\tilde{v}_1, \dots, \tilde{v}_k$ of the same length p are **linearly independent** if the only numbers $c_1, \dots, c_k$ with

$$c_1 \tilde{v}_1 + \dots + c_k \tilde{v}_k = \tilde{0}$$

are $c_1 = \dots = c_k = 0$.

Example 0.5 (Independent and dependent pairs of vectors).

- $\tilde{v}_1 = (1, 0)$ and $\tilde{v}_2 = (1, 1)$ are linearly independent: $c_1 \tilde{v}_1 + c_2 \tilde{v}_2 = (c_1 + c_2, c_2)$, which is $\tilde{0}$ only if $c_2 = 0$ and then $c_1 = 0$.
- $\tilde{v}_1 = (1, 2)$ and $\tilde{v}_2 = (2, 4)$ are not: $2\tilde{v}_1 - \tilde{v}_2 = \tilde{0}$.

Definition 0.19 (Rank). The **rank** of a matrix $\mathbf{A}$, written $\text{rank}(\mathbf{A})$, is the largest number of columns of $\mathbf{A}$ that are linearly independent (Definition 0.18).

An $n \times p$ matrix whose rank is p , so that all of its columns are linearly independent, is said to have *full column rank*; that can only happen when $p \leq n$, because more than n vectors of length n are never linearly independent.

Example 0.6 (The rank of two 3×2 matrices). The matrix $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$ has rank 2: if

$c_1(1, 1, 1) + c_2(1, 2, 3) = \tilde{0}$, then subtracting the first entry from the second gives $c_2 = 0$, and then $c_1 = 0$.

The matrix $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$ has rank 1: its second column is twice its first, so the two columns are not linearly independent, but the first column on its own is.

Special Matrices

See also Definition 0.13 for the zero matrix.

Definition 0.20 (Square matrix). A matrix is **square** if it has the same number of rows as columns.

Definition 0.21 (Order of a square matrix). The **order** of a square matrix (Definition 0.20) is its number of rows, which equals its number of columns.

Definition 0.22 (Matrix power). For a square matrix $\mathbf{A}$ of order p and a positive integer k , the k -th **power** of $\mathbf{A}$ is:

$$\mathbf{A}^k = \underbrace{\mathbf{A} \mathbf{A} \cdots \mathbf{A}}_{k \text{ copies}}$$

In particular, $\mathbf{A}^2 = \mathbf{A}\mathbf{A}$.

Definition 0.23 (Identity matrix). The $p \times p$ **identity matrix** $\mathbf{I}_p$ (or $\mathbf{I}$ when the size is clear from context) has ones on the main diagonal and zeros elsewhere:

$$(\mathbf{I}_p)_{ij} = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases} \quad \mathbf{I}_p = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

Theorem 0.11 (Identity matrix is a multiplicative identity). *For any $m \times p$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$:*

$$\mathbf{A} \mathbf{I}_p = \mathbf{A}$$

$$\mathbf{I}_m \mathbf{A} = \mathbf{A}$$

Definition 0.24 (Symmetric matrix). A square matrix $\mathbf{A}$ is **symmetric** if $\mathbf{A}^\top = \mathbf{A}$, i.e., $a_{ij} = a_{ji}$ for all i and j .

Covariance matrices and information matrices are symmetric.

Definition 0.25 (Diagonal matrix). A square matrix $\mathbf{D}$ is a **diagonal matrix** if all off-diagonal entries are zero: $d_{ij} = 0$ whenever $i \neq j$:

$$\mathbf{D} = \begin{bmatrix} d_1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & d_2 & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & d_p \end{bmatrix}$$

Diagonal matrices are denoted $\mathbf{D} = \text{diag}(d_1, d_2, \dots, d_p)$, where $d_1, \dots, d_p$ are the diagonal entries.

Definition 0.26 (Matrix inverse). For a square $p \times p$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$, the **inverse** $\mathbf{A}^{-1}$ (if it exists) is the unique matrix satisfying:

$$\mathbf{A} \mathbf{A}^{-1} = \mathbf{A}^{-1} \mathbf{A} = \mathbf{I}_p$$

Definition 0.27 (Invertible matrix). A square matrix $\mathbf{A}$ is **invertible** (or *non-singular*) if it has an inverse $\mathbf{A}^{-1}$ (Definition 0.26). A square matrix with no inverse is *singular*.

Example 0.7 (An invertible matrix and a singular one). The matrix $\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$ is invertible, with $\mathbf{A}^{-1} = \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 & -0.5 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$: multiplying out gives $\mathbf{A} \mathbf{A}^{-1} = \mathbf{A}^{-1} \mathbf{A} = \mathbf{I}_2$. The matrix $\mathbf{B} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$ is singular: for any 2×2 matrix $\mathbf{C}$, the two rows of $\mathbf{BC}$ are equal, so $\mathbf{BC}$ can never be $\mathbf{I}_2$, whose two rows differ.

Theorem 0.12 (Inverse of a product). If $\mathbf{A}$ and $\mathbf{B}$ are invertible $p \times p$ matrices, then $\mathbf{AB}$ is invertible, and

$$(\mathbf{AB})^{-1} = \mathbf{B}^{-1} \mathbf{A}^{-1}$$

i Proof

Proof. Multiply $\mathbf{AB}$ by the candidate inverse on the right:

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{AB})(\mathbf{B}^{-1} \mathbf{A}^{-1}) &= \mathbf{A}(\mathbf{BB}^{-1})\mathbf{A}^{-1} && \text{(matrix multiplication is associative)} \\ &= \mathbf{A} \mathbf{I}_p \mathbf{A}^{-1} && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{B}^{-1}) \\ &= \mathbf{AA}^{-1} && \text{(identity matrix)} \\ &= \mathbf{I}_p && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{A}^{-1}) \end{aligned}$$

and on the left:

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{B}^{-1} \mathbf{A}^{-1})(\mathbf{AB}) &= \mathbf{B}^{-1}(\mathbf{A}^{-1} \mathbf{A})\mathbf{B} && \text{(matrix multiplication is associative)} \\ &= \mathbf{B}^{-1} \mathbf{I}_p \mathbf{B} && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{A}^{-1}) \\ &= \mathbf{B}^{-1} \mathbf{B} && \text{(identity matrix)} \\ &= \mathbf{I}_p && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{B}^{-1}) \end{aligned}$$

So $\mathbf{B}^{-1} \mathbf{A}^{-1}$ satisfies Definition 0.26 for $\mathbf{AB}$. The steps use Theorem 0.7 and Theorem 0.11. $\square$

Theorem 0.13 (Inverse of a transpose). *If $\mathbf{A}$ is an invertible $p \times p$ matrix, then $\mathbf{A}^\top$ is invertible, and*

$$(\mathbf{A}^\top)^{-1} = (\mathbf{A}^{-1})^\top$$

i Proof

Proof. Multiply $\mathbf{A}^\top$ by the candidate inverse on each side:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{A}^\top (\mathbf{A}^{-1})^\top &= (\mathbf{A}^{-1} \mathbf{A})^\top && \text{(transpose of a product)} \\ &= \mathbf{I}_p^\top && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{A}^{-1}) \\ &= \mathbf{I}_p && (\mathbf{I}_p \text{ is symmetric}) \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{A}^{-1})^\top \mathbf{A}^\top &= (\mathbf{A} \mathbf{A}^{-1})^\top && \text{(transpose of a product)} \\ &= \mathbf{I}_p^\top && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{A}^{-1}) \\ &= \mathbf{I}_p && (\mathbf{I}_p \text{ is symmetric}) \end{aligned}$$

So $(\mathbf{A}^{-1})^\top$ satisfies Definition 0.26 for $\mathbf{A}^\top$. The first step of each display is Theorem 0.10. $\square$

Example 0.8 (Inverting a transpose). For $\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, Example 0.7 gives $\mathbf{A}^{-1} = \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 & -0.5 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, so Theorem 0.13 says

$$(\mathbf{A}^\top)^{-1} = \left(\begin{bmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \right)^{-1} = (\mathbf{A}^{-1})^\top = \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 & 0 \\ -0.5 & 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

and multiplying $\begin{bmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 & 0 \\ -0.5 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$ out does give $\mathbf{I}_2$.

Corollary 0.1 (The inverse of a symmetric matrix is symmetric). *If $\mathbf{A}$ is symmetric and invertible, then $\mathbf{A}^{-1}$ is symmetric.*

i Proof

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{A}^{-1})^\top &= (\mathbf{A}^\top)^{-1} && \text{(inverse of a transpose)} \\ &= \mathbf{A}^{-1} && (\mathbf{A} \text{ is symmetric}) \end{aligned}$$

The first step is Theorem 0.13. □

Example 0.9 (Inverting a symmetric matrix). $\mathbf{S} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$ is symmetric, and $\mathbf{S}^{-1} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$ is symmetric too, as Corollary 0.1 says.

Definition 0.28 (Idempotent matrix). A square matrix $\mathbf{A}$ is **idempotent** if

$$\mathbf{A}^2 = \mathbf{A}$$

Definition 0.29 (Orthogonal projection matrix). A square matrix $\mathbf{P}$ is an **orthogonal projection matrix** if it is both symmetric (Definition 0.24) and idempotent (Definition 0.28):

$$\mathbf{P}^\top = \mathbf{P} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{P}^2 = \mathbf{P}$$

Any idempotent matrix is called a *projection matrix*; an idempotent matrix that is not symmetric is an *oblique* projection. Regression texts often say “projection matrix” when they mean an orthogonal one. In these notes, “projection matrix” always means an orthogonal projection matrix in the sense of Definition 0.29.

Example 0.10 (An orthogonal projection and an oblique one). $\mathbf{P} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$ is symmetric, and $\mathbf{P}^2 = \mathbf{P}$, so $\mathbf{P}$ is an orthogonal projection matrix; it maps (v_1, v_2) to $(v_1, 0)$.

$\mathbf{Q} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$ is idempotent:

$$\mathbf{Q}^2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \cdot 1 + 1 \cdot 0 & 1 \cdot 1 + 1 \cdot 0 \\ 0 \cdot 1 + 0 \cdot 0 & 0 \cdot 1 + 0 \cdot 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{Q},$$

but $\mathbf{Q}^\top \neq \mathbf{Q}$, so $\mathbf{Q}$ is an oblique projection, not an orthogonal projection matrix.

Theorem 0.14 (Complement of a projection matrix). *If $\mathbf{P}$ is a $p \times p$ orthogonal projection matrix (Definition 0.29), then $\mathbf{I}_p - \mathbf{P}$ is also an orthogonal projection matrix.*

i Proof

Proof. We verify symmetry and idempotency.

Symmetry:

$$(\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P})^\top = \mathbf{I}^\top - \mathbf{P}^\top = \mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P}$$

Idempotency:

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P})^2 &= (\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P})(\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P}) \\ &= \mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P} - \mathbf{P} + \mathbf{P}^2 \\ &= \mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P} - \mathbf{P} + \mathbf{P} \\ &= \mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P} \end{aligned}$$

□

Theorem 0.15 (Projection matrices produce orthogonal decompositions). *If $\mathbf{P}$ is a $p \times p$ orthogonal projection matrix (Definition 0.29) and $\tilde{v}$ is any vector of length p , then the two components of the decomposition*

$$\tilde{v} = \underbrace{\mathbf{P}\tilde{v}}_{\text{projected}} + \underbrace{(\mathbf{I}_p - \mathbf{P})\tilde{v}}_{\text{residual}}$$

are orthogonal:

$$\mathbf{P}\tilde{v} \perp (\mathbf{I}_p - \mathbf{P})\tilde{v}$$

i Proof

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{P}\tilde{v})^\top (\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P})\tilde{v} &= \tilde{v}^\top \mathbf{P}^\top (\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P})\tilde{v} \\ &= \tilde{v}^\top \mathbf{P} (\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{P})\tilde{v} \\ &= \tilde{v}^\top (\mathbf{P} - \mathbf{P}^2)\tilde{v} \\ &= \tilde{v}^\top (\mathbf{P} - \mathbf{P})\tilde{v} \\ &= \tilde{v}^\top \mathbf{0} \tilde{v} \\ &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

where the second line uses symmetry ($\mathbf{P}^\top = \mathbf{P}$) and the fourth line uses idempotency ($\mathbf{P}^2 = \mathbf{P}$). □

Quadratic Forms

Definition 0.30 (Quadratic form). A **quadratic form** is a mathematical expression of the structure

$$\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x}$$

where $\tilde{x}$ is a $p \times 1$ vector and $\mathbf{S}$ is a $p \times p$ matrix.

Quadratic forms are the matrix generalizations of the scalar expression cx^2 . They occur frequently in statistics:

- The residual sum of squares in linear regression (see [Vector Calculus](#)) is a quadratic form.
- The variance of a linear combination of estimates (see [Inference about Gaussian Linear Regression Models](#)) is a quadratic form: $\text{Var}\left(\tilde{x}^\top \hat{\beta}\right) = \tilde{x}^\top \text{Var}\left(\hat{\beta}\right) \tilde{x}$.

Definition 0.31 (Symmetric part of a square matrix). The **symmetric part** of a $p \times p$ matrix $\mathbf{S}$ is

$$\frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{S} + \mathbf{S}^\top)$$

Example 0.11 (The symmetric part of a 2×2 matrix). For $\mathbf{S} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$, the symmetric part is

$$\frac{1}{2} \left(\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \right) = \frac{1}{2} \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 6 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix},$$

which is symmetric.

Theorem 0.16 (A quadratic form depends only on the symmetric part). *If $\mathbf{S}$ is a $p \times p$ matrix and $\tilde{x}$ is a vector of length p , then*

$$\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x} = \tilde{x}^\top \left(\frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{S} + \mathbf{S}^\top) \right) \tilde{x}.$$

So the value of a quadratic form depends only on the symmetric part (Definition 0.31) of $\mathbf{S}$.

i Proof

Proof. The quadratic form $\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x}$ is a 1×1 matrix, so it equals its own transpose:

$$\begin{aligned}\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x} &= (\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x})^\top && \text{(a } 1 \times 1 \text{ matrix is symmetric)} \\ &= \tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S}^\top (\tilde{x}^\top)^\top && \text{(transpose of a product, twice)} \\ &= \tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S}^\top \tilde{x} && \text{(transposing twice changes nothing)}\end{aligned}$$

Averaging the two expressions for $\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x}$:

$$\begin{aligned}\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x} &= \frac{1}{2}(\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x} + \tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S}^\top \tilde{x}) && \text{(average of two equal numbers)} \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \tilde{x}^\top (\mathbf{S} + \mathbf{S}^\top) \tilde{x} && \text{(distributive law)} \\ &= \tilde{x}^\top \left(\frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{S} + \mathbf{S}^\top) \right) \tilde{x} && \text{(move the scalar } \frac{1}{2} \text{ inside)}\end{aligned}$$

The distributive step is Theorem 0.8, and the transpose step is Theorem 0.10. $\square$

Example 0.12 (Replacing a matrix by its symmetric part). With $\mathbf{S} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$ from Example 0.11 and $\tilde{x} = (1, 1)$:

$$\tilde{x}^\top \mathbf{S} \tilde{x} = 1 + 2 + 0 + 3 = 6 \quad \tilde{x}^\top \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \tilde{x} = 1 + 1 + 1 + 3 = 6$$

Both quadratic forms equal the sum of their matrix's entries, because every entry of $\tilde{x}$ is 1.

Design Matrix

Definition 0.32 (Design matrix). In a regression model with n observations and p predictors, the **design matrix** (or *model matrix*) $\mathbf{X}$ is the $n \times p$ matrix whose i -th row is the covariate vector $\tilde{x}_i^\top$ for observation i :

$$\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} \tilde{x}_1^\top \\ \tilde{x}_2^\top \\ \vdots \\ \tilde{x}_n^\top \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} x_{11} & x_{12} & \cdots & x_{1p} \\ x_{21} & x_{22} & \cdots & x_{2p} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ x_{n1} & x_{n2} & \cdots & x_{np} \end{bmatrix}$$

The product $\mathbf{X}\tilde{\beta}$ collects all the linear predictors $\tilde{x}_i^\top \tilde{\beta}$ into a single $n \times 1$ vector:

$$\mathbf{X}\tilde{\beta} = \begin{bmatrix} \tilde{x}_1^\top \tilde{\beta} \\ \vdots \\ \tilde{x}_n^\top \tilde{\beta} \end{bmatrix}$$

The matrix $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ is a $p \times p$ symmetric matrix that appears in the OLS estimator $\hat{\beta} = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \tilde{y}$.

Theorem 0.17 ($\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ is invertible when $\mathbf{X}$ has full column rank). *If $\mathbf{X}$ is an $n \times p$ matrix with $\text{rank}(\mathbf{X}) = p$ (Definition 0.19), then the $p \times p$ matrix $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ is invertible.*

Proof

Proof. Let $\tilde{c}$ be a vector of length p with $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} \tilde{c} = \tilde{0}$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= \tilde{c}^\top \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} \tilde{c} && \text{(multiply } \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} \tilde{c} = \tilde{0} \text{ on the left by } \tilde{c}^\top) \\ &= (\mathbf{X} \tilde{c})^\top (\mathbf{X} \tilde{c}) && \text{(transpose of a product)} \\ &= \|\mathbf{X} \tilde{c}\|^2 && \text{(definition of the Euclidean norm)} \end{aligned}$$

so $\mathbf{X} \tilde{c} = \tilde{0}$. Because $\mathbf{X} \tilde{c} = c_1(\text{column } 1) + \dots + c_p(\text{column } p)$ and the columns of $\mathbf{X}$ are linearly independent, $\tilde{c} = \tilde{0}$. So the only solution of $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} \tilde{c} = \tilde{0}$ is $\tilde{c} = \tilde{0}$, which says that the columns of the square matrix $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ are linearly independent, and a square matrix with linearly independent columns is invertible (Banerjee and Roy 2014, Corollary 5.7, p. 143). $\square$

Example 0.13 (Inverting $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$). For the rank-2 matrix $\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$ from Example 0.6:

$$\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 & 6 \\ 6 & 14 \end{bmatrix}, \quad (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} = \frac{1}{6} \begin{bmatrix} 14 & -6 \\ -6 & 3 \end{bmatrix},$$

and multiplying the two out gives $\mathbf{I}_2$.

Definition 0.33 (Hat matrix). For an $n \times p$ design matrix $\mathbf{X}$ (Definition 0.32) with $\text{rank}(\mathbf{X}) = p$, the **hat matrix** is the $n \times n$ matrix

$$\mathbf{H} \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \underbrace{\mathbf{X}}_{n \times p} \underbrace{(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1}}_{p \times p} \underbrace{\mathbf{X}^\top}_{p \times n}$$

The inverse exists by Theorem 0.17.

Example 0.14 (The hat matrix of an intercept-only model). With $n = 2$ observations and only an intercept, $\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ (2×1 , rank 1), so $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} = 2$ and

$$\mathbf{H} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \cdot \frac{1}{2} \cdot \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 & 0.5 \\ 0.5 & 0.5 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Then $\mathbf{H}\tilde{\mathbf{y}} = (\bar{y}, \bar{y})$, where $\bar{y} = (y_1 + y_2)/2$: the fitted values of an intercept-only model are the sample mean.

Theorem 0.18 (Hat matrix is a projection matrix). *If $\mathbf{X}$ is an $n \times p$ design matrix with $\text{rank}(\mathbf{X}) = p$, then the hat matrix $\mathbf{H}$ (Definition 0.33) is an orthogonal projection matrix (Definition 0.29).*

Proof

Proof. We verify symmetry and idempotency. Both use that $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ is symmetric, $(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^\top = \mathbf{X}^\top (\mathbf{X}^\top)^\top = \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ (Theorem 0.10), so its inverse is symmetric too (Corollary 0.1).

Symmetry:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{H}^\top &= (\mathbf{X}(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top)^\top && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{H} \text{)} \\ &= (\mathbf{X}^\top)^\top \cdot ((\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1})^\top \cdot \mathbf{X}^\top && \text{(transpose of a product, twice)} \\ &= \mathbf{X} \cdot ((\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1})^\top \cdot \mathbf{X}^\top && \text{(transposing twice changes nothing)} \\ &= \mathbf{X} \cdot (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \cdot \mathbf{X}^\top && \text{(the inverse of a symmetric matrix is symmetric)} \\ &= \mathbf{H} && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{H} \text{)} \end{aligned}$$

Idempotency:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{H}^2 &= \mathbf{X}(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \cdot \mathbf{X}(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{H} \text{)} \\ &= \mathbf{X}(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}) (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top && \text{(regroup; matrix multiplication is associative)} \\ &= \mathbf{X} \mathbf{I}_p (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top && \text{(definition of the inverse)} \\ &= \mathbf{X}(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top && \text{(identity matrix)} \\ &= \mathbf{H} && \text{(definition of } \mathbf{H} \text{)} \end{aligned}$$

□

Example 0.15 (The intercept-only hat matrix is a projection). For $\mathbf{H} = \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 & 0.5 \\ 0.5 & 0.5 \end{bmatrix}$ from Example 0.14, $\mathbf{H}^\top = \mathbf{H}$, and

$$\mathbf{H}^2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 \cdot 0.5 + 0.5 \cdot 0.5 & 0.5 \cdot 0.5 + 0.5 \cdot 0.5 \\ 0.5 \cdot 0.5 + 0.5 \cdot 0.5 & 0.5 \cdot 0.5 + 0.5 \cdot 0.5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0.5 & 0.5 \\ 0.5 & 0.5 \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{H},$$

as Theorem 0.18 says.

The hat matrix appears in the formula for fitted values in linear regression: $\hat{\tilde{y}} = \mathbf{X}\hat{\tilde{\beta}} = \mathbf{X}(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \tilde{y} = \mathbf{H}\tilde{y}$. It “puts a hat” on $\tilde{y}$ — hence the name.

Additional resources

- Fieller (2016)
- Banerjee and Roy (2014)
- Searle and Khuri (2017)

References

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